

NOTES

Chapter One

1. In distinguishing between a democracy and a republic Madison was no doubt referring to the Greek's view that a democratic state had to be limited to a certain size.

Aristotle argues in the Politics that a territory that is too small cannot be a democratic state because it is not self-sufficient. But a territory that is too large cannot be governed democratically, either, "for the simple reason that it can hardly have a true constitution. Who can be the general of a mass so excessively large? And who can give it orders, unless he has Stentor's voice?" (VII, iv, sec. 11 in Barker, The Politics of Aristotle 292)

2. Letter to John Jay, Aug. 23, 1785 (Koch and Peden 377).

3. Letter to John Adams, Oct. 28, 1814 (James Adams 14).

4. Notes on the State of Virginia (Koch and Peden 280); see also Tocqueville 1: 289-90. "In cities men cannot be prevented from concerting together and awakening a mutual excitement that prompts sudden and passionate resolutions" (1: 290).

5. First Inaugural Address (Koch and Peden 322).

6. Jefferson once wrote that "it would have been inconsistent in creation to have formed man for the social state, and not to have provided virtue and wisdom enough to manage the concerns of the society" (Letter to John Adams, Oct. 28, 1814). Man is by nature a social animal, Jefferson reasoned, and nature--God's design--would not make man a social animal and then fail to equip him "naturally" with the mental habits required to be social (James Adams 14).

7. Letter to Edward Carrington Jan. 16, 1787 (Koch and Peden 411).

8. In his Second Inaugural Address Jefferson said that an "experiment" had been tried in front of the world to see "whether a government, conducting itself in the true spirit of its constitution, with zeal and purity, and doing no act which it would be unwilling the whole world should witness, can be written down by falsehood and defamation." The people proved wiser and steadier than the press which inflamed them, Jefferson concluded. He therefore recommended no restraints on the press other than those of libel law in effect at the time (Koch and Peden 343-4). But throughout his life Jefferson felt he had suffered unfairly at the hands of a licentious press (Mott, American Journalism 171).

9. Here we should point one of the reasons why Jefferson's idea of limiting the demands on the public mind

has had a negligible effect. Any agency which attempted to define a "reasonable demand" on the citizen's intellect would appear to be acting as a censor, arrogating to itself the right to decide what the people can and cannot know.

10. Letter to J.C. Cabell, Jan. 31, 1814 (James Adams 124).

11. The day when the United States will have to become a mercantile nation is still distant, Jefferson wrote, "and we should long keep our workmen in Europe, while Europe should be drawing rough materials and even subsistence from America" (Letter to Count van Hogendorp, Oct. 13, 1785 in James Adams 72).

Chapter Two

1. On journalism history being mostly a chronicle of events see Schudson, Discovering the News. "Most histories of American newspapers have sought only to describe, not to explain, the changes in American journalism" (39). As an example of what Schudson means, consider the explanation Mott offers for the rise of the penny press. He writes: "Since the newspaper man's definition of news is conditioned by what his public looks for, the great change in that public occasioned by the advent of the cheap dailies inevitably caused a shift in the news concept." The passage appears to argue that the new audience for the penny press

caused the journalist to fashion a new concept of news. But the only reason there existed a new audience for journalism was that the penny papers had invented a new concept for news, which drew new classes of people to the newspaper. Mott therefore has it backwards. In any event, the question does not concern him very deeply. It gets less than a page before Mott moves on to chronicling other events (American Journalism 243).

2. On the tower and the intelligibility of the city see Roland Barthes's intriguing essay on the Eiffel Tower in The Eiffel Tower and Other Mythologies 3-17.

3. Perhaps the most interesting solution was tried by the publishers of what Daniel Boorstin calls the "booster press." These were enterprising men of the nineteenth century who owned a printing press in need of a community to give it business. They would set up shop in some frontier outpost and begin issuing a newspaper whose sole purpose was to advertise the town to potential settlers and investors (The Americans: the National Experience 125). If he succeeded and the town grew, the booster printer could count on a healthy trade for his printing shop. If he failed, he could simply load the press on a barge and move on to another spot (Rutland 126). If William Bradford offered daily news before the arrival of the daily newspaper, the booster printer furnished a variety of the newspaper in

advance of the need for news-- a different but equally interesting case of one history departing from the other. With no news to report, no social problem to solve, the booster paper was simply a means of supporting the capital investment of the printing press. This relationship between the newspaper and the printing press held even for daily papers in established cities. Looking back on his publishing career, Benjamin Day acknowledged that "for a long time the principal object of the newspaper was to advertise the job office" (Mott, American Journalism 242). This from the publisher of the first penny paper.

4. On newspapers never having been fully independent see Lippman, Public Opinion 203-4; see also White, "How Free is Our Press?"

5. On the exclusivity of the newsletter see Bleyer 12-13. See also Hughes 3; the newsletter, she writes, "was not a public record; it did not circulate indiscriminately."

6. Discovering the News 119; on this point see also Mencken, "Newspaper Morals." Mencken writes that the righteous fervor aroused by the human interest story and newspaper crusade "does not constitute an intelligible system of morality, for morality, at bottom, is not at all an instinctive matter, but a purely intellectual matter: its essence is the control of impulse by an ideational process, the subordination of the immediate desire to the distant

aim" (294). The popular newspaper audience was incapable of this sort of self-control, Mencken observed.

7. This basic tenet of structuralist thought originates with Saussure's study of language as a system of differences. See Hawkes, Structuralism and Semiotics and Barthes, Elements of Semiology.

8. The detective story can be thought of as an information drama centered around the question: what is news and what is not? What the good detective really knows is not how to get information, but how to turn ordinary details into information by filtering them through his intelligence. The relationship between Sherlock Holmes and the hapless Dr. Watson illustrates this nicely. The two men witness the same events, but Holmes always learns more than Watson. The reason, of course, is that Holmes has in his head an ordered knowledge of crime, criminals, and human behavior--his genius--which can turn the smallest detail into "news" about the case, while Watson can only make wild guesses at what Holmes is thinking. In any given encounter Holmes will see and hear more than his friend, but that is not the reason he knows so much. Rather, it is the other way around. Holmes gathers more information from each event because he has such amazing equipment for creating knowledge out of passing facts. In devising these two characters Arthur Conan Doyle showed an advanced understanding of what

(and where) information is. To Doyle, information is not a "thing" in the world or a property of events but a function of the way a perceiver approaches the environment. Anything can be information if one has a sufficiently elaborate mental structure for sorting and arranging facts. Holmes and Watson are extreme examples of the presence and absence of such a structure. Holmes, the hero, is a super-informed man who gets excited about nothing because he is always ahead of the happenings in the story. Watson, the ordinary man, is constantly astonished by Holmes and the turn of events in the tale. To Holmes, everything is news; to Watson everything is sensation.

9. On the uncritical equation journalists make between events in nature and other types of events see Gaye Tuchman, "Professionalization as an Agent of Legitimation." She writes: "Like tornados and earthquakes, economic fluctuations are presented as though they were acts of God or Nature, whose mysterious workings are not subject to human control" (110).

Chapter Three

1. On newspapers that failed the test of trial and error see Bleyer 169.

2. My understanding of feedback and information theory in general is taken from Wiener, The Human Use of Human Beings and Campbell, Grammatical Man.

3. Letter to John Norvell, June 11, 1807 (Koch and Peden 582).

4. The conflict between sober, factual reporting and comic exaggeration was partly a result of the complex system the newspaper evolved for meeting the costs of production. In effect, Bennett subsidized the "important" news with profits from the "interesting," which were themselves generated indirectly through the sale of advertising. Important news is thus twice removed from the demands of the marketplace: once through the subsidy lent by the human interest story and again through the advertising system which turns the popularity of human interest items into actual profits. One of the problems this system raises for students of the press is the existence of features which are demands on rather than demands of the audience. Much of the news and commentary which makes its way into the press has, since the penny papers, been a demand on rather than a demand of the public it supposedly informs. There are no simple equations, then, between the content of the newspaper and the actual interests of the audience. Anthropologically, the newspaper is fraught with interpretation problems, for it is partly a record of popular interests and partly a record of what journalists or other special classes deemed important.

5. Samuel Morse opened the first telegraph line on May 24, 1844 by sending the famous message, "What hath God

wrought?" from Washington, D.C. to Baltimore (Czitrom 6). Newspapers were among the first users of the telegraph and their capital played a major role in the spread of the device. In 1848, Czitrom reports, Bennett was boasting of the money his paper was spending on telegraph dispatches (15-16). By the time of the Civil War the telegraph was fully integrated into the newspaper industry and had radically altered the process of newsgathering.

6. Bleyer 257. On the fantastic hopes inspired by the telegraph see also Czitrom 10-14.

7. Harold Innis's views on space-binding and time-binding media are found in The Bias of Communication. See also James Carey, "Harold Adams Innis and Marshall McLuhan" and "Canadian Economic Theory: Extensions and Interpretations of Harold Innis."

Chapter Four

1. On changing notions of who "the people" are see George Boas, Vox Populi: Essays in the History of an Idea 8, 39, 53-4.

2. Freud thought hypnosis a more concentrated form of the relationship which prevailed between leaders and followers (Group Psychology 47, 59).

3. Freud's analysis is particularly relevant to discussions of charisma, politics and television. It would

be possible to argue, for example, that television allows the modern political leader to establish individual relationships with each citizen. These para-personal relationships may happen to converge at the ballot box, but that does not make the leader's followers a political movement with a declared goal and set of shared principles. One could go on to interpret the "Reagan mandate" as the convergence of libidinal ties the President is able to establish with each member of the television audience. On the usefulness of Freud to a discussion of modern politics see Rieff 236-8.

4. On the utility of the distinction between community and society see Richard Bendix, "Tradition and Modernity Reconsidered." On modernity being both a freeing and restricting experience see Berman, All That is Solid Melts into Air.

Chapter Five

1. To recover "culture" (and its history) from what purports to be "nature" is the task Roland Barthes assigns to himself in Mythologies, where he defines myth as--among other things--that which transforms culture into nature.

2. On the need to produce consumers in the twentieth century see Ewen, Captains of Consciousness. By the 1920s, Ewen reports, "foresighted businessmen began to see the

necessity of organizing their business not merely around the production of goods, but around the creation of a buying public" (25-6). See also Pope, The Making of Modern Advertising: "Marketing mass-produced consumer goods demanded a revised model of buyer behavior. Manufacturers had to catch the consumer's attention, arouse desires, and transform desires into purchases. Moreover, they had to perform these tasks wholesale, as it were, for hundreds of thousands or even millions of customers. To do this, advertisers and agents had to become as familiar as possible with the behavior of consumers and with the means of persuading them" (248-9). As we will see in Chapter Six, at the same time that advertisers were struggling to include the audience in their communications, the press was attempting to elude the audience by building a wall between the "editorial" and "business" sides of the paper.

3. On the degradation of work see Ewen, 105-6 and Braverman, Labor and Monopoly Capital. On the connection between mass circulation newspapers and the degradation of work see George Herbert Mead's suggestive essay "The Nature of Aesthetic Experience."

4. On the blurring of public and private realms see, in addition to Arendt and Sennett, Christopher Lasch, The Culture of Narcissism and its sequel The Minimal Self. Also see Juergen Habermas's theories of the public sphere,

summarized in Habermas, "The Public Sphere: An Encyclopedia Article" and in Peter Hohendahl, "Introduction to Habermas."

5. Opposed to Williams's view of "massness" as a relation or process would be Ortega y Gasset's perspective in The Revolt of the Masses, where he writes, "In the presence of one individual we can decide whether he is 'mass' or not" (14). For Ortega "massness" is clearly an essence, a quality which inheres in individuals; while for Williams it arises from a particular set of social relationships.

6. The history of the term "individual" illustrates the onset of a mass society, Williams argues. Originally "individual" was equivalent to "inseperable" or "indivisible." It was used to designate the individual members of group, who could not be talked about outside the community or role which gave them their identity. The modern meaning of the term refers to the individual in his own right, a person considered apart from any corporate structure which would limit or shape his identity. Today, the individual is what is left over after all group identities have been revealed as empty or arbitrary conventions. The overall tendency, Williams writes, is "the abstraction of the individual from the complex of relationships by which he had hitherto been normally defined." At the same time, the group or totality also

became more abstract, with terms like "society" and "state" coming to signify huge, opposing forces bearing down on the individual, threatening to oppress him (Long Revolution 76). Against this background, mass communication can be seen as the new means for linking abstracted individuals to abstracted totalities like the state or the corporation.

7. For a contemporary version of Kirkegaard's perspective on the public realm see a pair of books by the French critic Jean Baudrillard, Simulations and In the Shadow of the Silent Majorities. What the "public" is to Kirkegaard the "mass" is to Baudrillard: a void into which meaning and community disappear. "The mass is without attribute, predicate, quality, reference. This is its definition, or its radical lack of definition. It has no sociological 'reality.' It has nothing to do with any real population, body or specific social aggregate. Any attempt to qualify it only seeks to transfer it back to sociology..." (In the Shadow of the Silent Majorities 5).

8. On the utility of "ideal types" in social thought see Bendix 313-17. Bendix warns against the reification of ideal types in history, where the student searches only for examples which confirm the type, all other evidence being seen as a temporary pause along the path of the type's rise. Ideal types are useful in illuminating history, he says, if the student is also interested in the conflicts and

reversals which occur within the contours of some large-scale historical change. It is from this perspective that Bendix undertakes an examination of the terms "tradition" and "modernity."

Chapter Six

1. Dewey, The Living Thoughts of Thomas Jefferson 15.

On there being no new ideas in the Declaration of Independence see also Brown, Modernization 85. On the vitality of an oral tradition reinforced by print see Postman, Amusing Ourselves to Death and Eagleton, The Functions of Criticism. Postman points to "a kind of printed orality" which prevailed in America up through the nineteenth century, in which the strength of the printed word created audiences for public speakers and gave a more serious and rational character to public discourse (39-42). Eagleton notes that in the eighteenth century the coffee house was a place where "communal reading" went on, meaning that the discussions taking place in the eighteenth century public sphere were based on the common reading members of the public had done, often in public places (23).

2. On the conflict between the city as a social environment and the public as a body of citizens prepared to act in the common good see Wiebe, The Search for Order. Wiebe observes that the rush to the cities around the turn

of the century created new social problems which had to be met by large scale planning and united action-- a true challenge to democracy. Water and sewer lines had to be built, roads paved, parks planned, public transportation designed. But "the same conditions that made the need so imperative diminished the capacity to meet it," Wiebe writes. "Pell-mell expansion destroyed the groups and neighborhoods that sustained social action. The thousands recently arrived, the thousands more moving about, concentrated narrowly on their own security. Men struggling to learn new skills or to preserve old ones in a rapidly-changing economy could not afford to think about city-wide issues. Without stability at home or on the job, the civic spirit had no place to take root" (13). The same conditions of flux and rapid expansion, inherently hostile to what Wiebe calls "the civic spirit," were also a boon to journalism. The cheap newspapers of the 1880s and 90s appealed to the immigrant's low level of literacy with big type, splashy photos and color comics. The point is not only that a newspaper composed of pictures and headlines fails to inform its audience, but that such a newspaper arises out of conditions which make an informed audience of civic-minded citizens nearly impossible. The city presented such conditions; the newspaper took advantage of them.

3. For a suggestive treatment of the decline of party politics and the rise of television see Terence Moran, "Politics 1984: That's Entertainment."

4. On the re-shaping of events for media coverage see Daniel Boorstin's The Image. Boorstin's analysis of the "pseudo-event," so prescient in some respects, is weakened by the lack of any theoretical explanation for the phenomenon. He seems to blame the rise of the pseudo-event on the fact that we expect life to be more interesting than it is and therefore encourage the image-makers to deceive us. He concludes with a plea for each of us to "moderate his expectations" (260). As a sociological understanding of mass imagery this view has some rather obvious limitations. As a historical analysis of the image-producing industries Boorstin's book barely exists. If somehow we do "expect too much" out of the world, there are a number of reasons why, among them the drive by business to produce dissatisfaction among consumers and offer products as the cure.

5. Arthur Brisbane, Hearst's most trusted editor, once made explicit this comparison between the newspaper and the department store. "Perhaps headlines do take up too much space," Brisbane said. "The display windows of the big stores take up too much space also. But in a busy nation the first necessity is to attract attention. The big store window, wasting space, and the big type, apparently wasting

space, are necessary features of quick development" (qtd. in Hughes 32).

6. On the telegraph promising a cure for democracy's problems consider, for example, what the House Ways and Means Committee wrote in recommending passage of an 1845 bill subsidizing the telegraph: "Doubt had been entertained by many patriotic minds how far the rapid, full and thorough intercommunication of thought and intelligence, so necessary to the people living under a common representative republic, could be expected to take place throughout such immense bounds. That doubt can no longer exist" (qtd. in Czitrom 12).

7. Schudson's Discovering the News is an exemplary effort to inquire into the social conditions which make news matter. Schudson's answer is that the rise of a "democratic market society" is what led people to demand new forms of journalism (46-47, 57-60, 121-22).

8. A typical observation of the "journalism has become a business" type would be a 1909 Arena article which noted that the "American newspaper of today is a business enterprise. The gathering and publishing of news, more or less doctored, is necessary to that business success. The circulation depends on the news columns--therefore the news must be sensational--and the amount of advertising depends on the circulation. The highest salaries, therefore, go to

the business-getters and the news-fakers-- the better the faker the better the salary" (Richard A. Haste, "The Evolution of the Fourth Estate" 350).

9. Will Irwin argues in his Collier's series that before Hearst and Pulitzer came along, the newspaper had already transformed itself into a profitable, commercial enterprise, but "enough of the old editorial ideal lingered to keep our newspaper publishers editors instead of businessmen" ("The Dim Beginnings" 17).

10. Three works which pursue the theme of outdated notions being fit to a new scale of commerce and social life are Wiebe, The Search for Order, Hays, The Response to Industrialism and Dewey, Individualism Old and New. The latter, of course, was written in 1929, during the period in question.

11. A.M. Lee 173. On the increase in the capital required to run a newspaper see White, "How Free is Our Press?" White estimated that a paper could have been started in the 1880s with "a dollar for each five of the town's population." After World War I, he reasoned, it required \$10 per head of population to start a newspaper in America, a fifty-fold increase (693).

12. On the cycle of price cuts and circulation wars see A.M. Lee 270-72. Also see James Curran's analysis of the same tendency in the British press in "The Press as an Agent

of Social Control." Curran notes that low prices virtually wiped out the radical press. "The capital required to establish a newspaper in the mass competitive market became steadily larger because the circulation level papers needed to reach before they broke even became progressively higher" (68). It was not only profits which depended on advertising, he notes, but the solvency of the operation. In the expanding market for newspapers around the turn of the century it was necessary to boost circulation just to stay in business, meaning that every newspaper had to adopt the methods of mass appeal or die out. On this point see also Alan Lee, "The Structure, Ownership and Control of the Press: 1855-1914" 124.

13. For an early observation on the manufacturing of events for news coverage see an 1873 editorial in the Nation on "The Professionalization of Journalism." The Nation wrote: "It has hitherto been considered the proper function of the newspapers to see or hear and report; but competition is now driving them into producing the facts which they record... If a journal hires an explorer or aeronaut or excavator, there is no reason why it should not eventually come to employ its own warriors and statesmen" (37).

14. A.M. Lee 285. See also Schudson, Discovering the News on how the Times was not immune to attention-producing tactics (114-120).

15. On how newspapers shaped the environment in which all messages compete for attention see E.L. Godkin, "Newspapers Here and Abroad." Godkin charged that the continuous exertion of effort necessary for reading books was being undermined by newspaper reading, which does not require the mind to concentrate for very long (202). On this theme generally see Susan Maushart Noone, Press Literacy, Book Literacy and the American Renaissance 1830-1860.

16. On the act of reading being shaped by market research see Jay Rosen, "Structuralism in Reverse."

17. The key technological developments in the growth of the modern newspaper began with the telegraph in 1844 (Mott, American Journalism 247-8; Czitrom 14-19) and the rotary press in 1847 (A.M. Lee 113-27), followed by the stereotyping process in the 1860s (Lee 117-8), the substitution of woodpulp for rags in paper-making in the 1870s (Lee 102), the typewriter in the 1870s and the telephone in the 1880s (Lee 628), photoengraving in 1873 and the photographic half-tone in 1880 (Lee 129), the linotype in 1886 (Lee 122), four-color printing in 1892 and the substitution of electric for steam power in printing in 1896 (Lee 123). By the 1890s most of these advances had been assimilated into the modern newsroom, whose divisions of labor began to reflect the new technological complex of newspapering.

18. On the "crisis of interpretation" brought on by the tactics of Hearst and Pulitzer see Birkhead, Presenting the Press. Birkhead argues that yellow journalism posed deep philosophical questions, not only about the nature of journalism but also about democracy and the common man (119). On journalism operating without a philosophy to guide it see also a 1912 essay in Living Age, "The American Yellow Press" 69 and Will Irwin, "The Power of the Press" 15.

19. Quoted in Birkhead 73. On journalism being a business which buys paper "by the ton to be sold at a profit retail" see Lincoln Steffens, "The Business of a Newspaper" 447.

20. The classic look at the manipulating of news by advertisers is Upton Sinclair's The Brass Check, written in 1919 at the height of muckraking era. On this theme see also Edward Alsworth Ross, "The Suppression of Important News"; Will Irwin, "The Advertising Influence" and "The Unhealthy Alliance"; Haste, "The Evolution of the Fourth Estate." Haste writes: "Those [newspapers] that are not owned, stock and bonds, body and soul, by corporations with interests to protect, are rendered nerveless and opinionless by the fear of losing their advertising patronage." This was a typical sentiment at the time (351).

21. On the more subtle effects of the newspaper's economic structure see the Nation, "The Myth of a Free

Press." The Nation argued: "Control of editorial opinion is rarely direct or specific. The modern daily newspaper is a great industrial organization, and everything which enters into its financial sustenance has an effect upon its policies, editorial or otherwise" (576).

22. On the endowed newspaper see Ross, "The Suppression of Important News" 310-11. On the municipal newspaper see A.M. Lee 190; on Scripps and the ad-less daily see Lee 188-9. A more recent attempt to market a paper without advertising was the PM experiment in New York. PM, a "writer's paper" with a radical bent, refused to accept any advertising, although it did follow the curious practice of listing other paper's ads. By 1948 the paper had a new name and owner and by 1952 the experiment had died.

23. Emery's view of yellow journalism as a set of useful (and basically harmless) techniques perverted by unscrupulous journalists is shared by Mott. See News in America 56-7.

24. For a critique of the assumption that the newspaper was "freed" from outside control by commercial success see Graham Murdock, "Class, Power and the Press: Problems of Conceptualization and Evidence."

25. As an example of what Birkhead means by a "textbook tradition" of journalism history consider Mott's American Journalism, the standard work in the field. In the Preface

to the Third Edition Mott specifically addresses the book to teachers in journalism schools, rather than to historians or students of American culture generally (v). Also, in the Preface to First Edition, reprinted in subsequent versions, he acknowledges his "sympathetic admiration for American journalism" (vii).

26. On the journalist as a "hired man" who does not have the autonomy of a true professional see Mencken, "Journalism in America" 216-7.

27. On journalism lacking the esoteric knowledge that makes for a professional mystique see Schudson, Discovering the News 8-9; Herbert W. Horwill, "The Training of the Journalist" 107-110 and Oliver Boyd-Barrett, "The Politics of Socialisation: Recruitment and Training for Journalism" 311.

28. On the beginnings of the journalism school see A.M. Lee 661.

29. On the great editor as the first incarnation of the journalist as a professional see also Birkhead 75 and Irwin, "The Fourth Current" 15.

30. In a speech entitled "A Plea for the University Tradition" James Carey told journalism educators the following: "Despite the fact that the public is regularly invoked as the final justification for the press, the simple fact is that the public has disappeared. There is no public out there. As Gertrude Stein has said of Oakland: 'Out

there there is no there there.' In professional circles talk about the public continues, of course, but no one any longer knows what they are talking about: a definition of the public and public life has been smuggled in but it is not subject to critical scrutiny" (853-4).

31. Carey is one of those who have argued that the "public's right to know" has become a catch-all phrase used to justify the claim of the press to higher status ("Journalism and Criticism: The Case of an Undeveloped Profession" 232).

Chapter Seven

1. The paper Lippmann joined was the New York World, where he worked for nine years. Joseph Pulitzer died in 1911, and his son Ralph took over the paper with the aim of making it more respectable. The most important figures in that move were Frank Cobb, who directed the editorial page, and Herbert Bayard Swope, the World's star reporter and a somewhat legendary figure around New York. The tone set by Cobb and Swope attracted an unusual number of talented writers, among them E.B. White, Ring Lardner and Heywood Broun. Lippmann was hired in 1922 as a writer for the editorial page of the World and ended up as its editor. The paper was sold in 1931 and Lippmann left. But he wrote two of his most important books, The Phantom Public (1925) and

A Preface to Morals (1929) while working daily for a daily newspaper. On Lippmann's tenure at the World see Steel 176-7, 197-210, 269-274.

2. For an account of the goings-on at the Paris Peace conference among government, press and publicity men see Roy Stannard Baker, "Publicity at Paris" New York Times April 2, 1922. On the Conference as a seminal event in government-press relations see Schudson, Discovering the News 164-5. See also Steel 141-154 on Lippmann's role at Paris as a propagandist for the United States. This was another dimension to Lippmann's perspective on press and public. In addition to being an intellectual, an advisor to Presidents and a journalist he also had experience in creating (and in some ways manipulating) public opinion.

3. On the American expectation that the schools can solve all social problems see Henry J. Perkinson, The Imperfect Panacea: American Faith in Education 1965-1965.

4. Smith, Goodbye Gutenberg 165. On the remarkable persistence of objectivity in journalism see also Schiller, Objectivity and the News 2-3 and Schudson, Discovering the News 1-10.

5. Public Opinion 155. On the greater credence given to the visual portion of public problems see also Le Bon, The Crowd 21 and Wallas, Human Nature in Politics 107-8.

6. The relationship between bureaucratization, on the one hand, and a heightened reliance on political imagery, on

the other, is discussed in depth in Wiebe 185-229.

Undoubtedly the most important figure here is Theodore Roosevelt, the first real media-conscious President and the man who invited the press into the White House by giving reporters a room for themselves. On Roosevelt and the press see Robert Pollard, Presidents and the Press 570-79.

7. Lippmann thought that Machiavelli served an important function for democrats in that he came to terms with facts the democratic heart could not bear to face, in particular the need for government to practice some form of coercion. Machiavelli's very name became synonymous with anti-democratic politics, not because he had nothing to say about the problems of democracy, thought Lippmann, but simply because the democrats refused to admit that he did. Weaknesses in their own theories could be associated with "Machiavellian" ideas and therefore dismissed. Machiavelli remained unassimilated into democratic thought, collecting under his sullied name all the doubts and illogic that remained in the ideas of the "pure" democrats. See Public Opinion 168-9, 186. See also Blum, Walter Lippmann: Cosmopolitanism in the Century of Total War 65-7.

8. On democratic theory failing to become learning theory see Phantom Public: "Democracy, therefore, has never developed an education for the public. It has merely given it a smattering of the kind of knowledge which the

responsible man requires. It has, in fact, aimed not at making good citizens but at making a mass of amateur executives. It has not taught the child how to act as a member of the public. It has merely given him a hasty, incomplete taste of what he might have to know if he meddled in everything" (148-9).

9. Among the attitudes Lippmann ran up against in Public Opinion was the still-powerful idea that truth wins out over falsehood if left free to compete with it. The classic statement of this position, of course, is Milton's: that the facts "in open encounter with Error" cannot fail to triumph. It was given a modern formulation by Oliver Wendell Holmes: "The best test of truth is the power to get itself accepted in the competition of the market." See Ernest Hocking, Freedom of the Press: A Framework of Principle 91-2, 106-9.

10. On the role of audience feedback in altering the nature of journalism see Smith, Goodbye Gutenberg 138-9, 157. Smith's most provocative idea is that "the locus of sovereignty over text" is shifting from writer to reader as new technologies make it more possible for the audience to select--and journalists to predict--what is desired in a newspaper (313). This change threatens to undo the classical conception of the newspaper as a forum for general information serving a general reader, who has duties of

citizenship the newspaper will help him perform (321).

11. The connection between low prices and a diminished "will to read" is even more relevant in the case of television, which costs the viewer nothing (directly) and is therefore totally concerned with maintaining the viewer's attention. On this point see Lou Cannon, Reporting: An Inside View 71-2.

12. The particular ways the newspaper has developed to meet its costs are now seen, not as devices, but as definitions of the form. Siebert et al. write that in the "libertarian" theory of the press "the functions of the mass media are to inform and entertain. A third function was developed as a necessary correlate to the others to provide a basis of economic support and thus to assure financial independence. This was the sales or advertising function" (51; see also Mott, American Journalism 53). By this logic the "Wingo" game the New York Post runs each morning is also a "function" of the press. To information, entertainment and advertising we should therefore add "conducting games of chance" to journalism's "functions." Clearly this is absurd. By refusing to make any distinctions between the public functions of the press and the peripheral tasks taken on to achieve solvency as a private enterprise, Siebert et al. reify the commercial structure of the newspaper as an inevitable form, or, as they put it, a "necessary

correlate." A different view would hold that neither entertainment nor the "advertising function" is inherent to the newspaper as a form. Rather, these are devices the newspaper develops to stay alive in a particular society, specifically an industrialized, urban economy, where people are presumably not willing to pay the full costs for their news. If a newspaper began to speculate in real estate in order to make money it would not be synthesizing a new "function" for the press. It would be struggling for survival or seeking out profit as a business which, after all, is only one way of organizing a newspaper or news agency. Conversely, if a newspaper found a circle of readers willing to pay a good deal for their news it would find no need for the advertising or entertainment "functions" which, to Siebert et al. define the newspaper form. For many newsletters and news services serving private industry this is precisely the case: a hefty subscription fee eliminates entertainment and advertising altogether.

13. The claim that news is made not found is the basis for a now substantial body of literature concerned with the sociology of newswork. The titles of many of the works in this vein emphasize the active role journalists have in constructing the news. See Mark Fishman, Manufacturing the News, Herbert J. Gans, Deciding What's News, Bernard Roscho,

Newsmaking, Gaye Tuchman, Making News, Leon V. Sigal, Reporters and Officials.

14. On social science as a science for Lippmann see Public Opinion 235-6, 248.

15. Ernest Gruening, "Public Opinion and Democracy" 97. See also John Dewey's reviews of both Public Opinion and The Phantom Public published in the New Republic, the journal Lippmann helped to found. Dewey's criticisms of Lippmann are discussed in Chapter Eight.

16. Lippmann's view that the problem of representation arose after the extension of the community's affairs in space ignores the very powerful argument that all perception, even of events close at hand, is a reduction and refiguring of what is given to the senses. In his remarks on stereotyping (Public Opinion 53-68) Lippmann acknowledges this fact, but he still leaves the impression that at some point in history people had some more or less "direct" way of perceiving their environment. It would be possible (and useful) to fashion a critique of Lippmann on the grounds that this has never been the case.

17. On images dissolving the "hardness" of the material world see Susan Sontag, On Photography. Sontag writes: "The attempts by photographers to bolster up a depleted sense of reality contribute to the depletion. Our oppressive sense of the transience of everything is more acute since cameras

gave us the means to 'fix' the fleeting moment. We consume images at an ever faster rate and, as Balzac suspected cameras used up layers of the body, images consume reality. Cameras are the antidote and the disease, a means of appropriating reality and a means of making it obsolete" (158).

18. One of the first people to write about market research allowing the audience to communicate with itself was Marshall McLuhan in his first book, The Mechanical Bride. See, for example, the discussion of ad agencies as the assemblers of a collective dream (97). See also Tony Schwartz, The Responsive Chord, a work heavily influenced by McLuhan.

19. See the Conclusion of the present study for a discussion of the view the Commission on Freedom of the Press had on objectivity. The Commission thought objectivity was meaningless as a statement about journalists if the audience was incapable of receiving objective information as information.

20. On the difficulty of "locating" the public as a being see John Dewey, The Public and its Problems. Dewey compares the question to the philosopher's attempt to locate the self or soul (117).

21. The quoting of official authorities is by now so central to journalism practice that it is easy to forget

that interviewing was virtually unheard of before the Civil War and did not become routine until after the turn of the century. Roscho observes that the reporter-as-interviewer arose with (and is essential to) the ideology of objectivity (41-2), which does not develop in full until the Twentieth Century.

22. That reporters are dependent on officials is one of the most frequently observed facts about the profession of journalism. See Fishman, 44-45, Gans 128-136, Roscho 49-50, Schudson, Discovering the News 184-5, Sigal, 119-140, Tuchman 82-97.

23. On McCarthy and the issue of "interpretation" in the news columns see Roscho 48-57 and Bayley, Joe McCarthy and the Press 75-87. For an earlier treatment of the interpretation question see Herbert Brucker, The Changing American Newspaper, published in 1937.

Chapter Eight

1. Dewey's critique of outdated notions of individualism is found in Individualism Old and New. See also The Public and its Problems 97-8.

2. On Cooley and his faith in communication see Czitrom 96-102. See also Philip Rieff's introduction to Cooley's Social Organization and, of course, the text itself.

3. On the "Thought News" project see Czitrom 104-8; Fred W. Matthews, Quest for an American Sociology 22-28;

and Lewis S. Feuer, "John Dewey and the Back to the People Movement in American Thought."

4. The New Journalism movement in the 1960s could be interpreted as an effort to lend more of the power of art to the practice of reporting, just as Dewey suggested. The experiment did not go far enough, however, since the practitioners of the genre did not generally attempt to enter the world of public affairs and compete with conventional reporters for the right to interpret public events. The handful of exceptions--most notably, Norman Mailer and Hunter Thompson in their writing about election campaigns--produced some of the best work associated with the New Journalism.

5. On there being trends and discoveries in the art of shaping messages for the public mind see C. Clark, "The Concept of the Public" 319-20; and Hardt, Social Theories of the Press 87-88.

6. The USA Today ad ran in the New York Times Oct. 4, 1984.

7. See the criticisms of C. Wright Mills on the equation between public opinion with polling results (The Sociological Imagination 52-3).

8. On the "forgotten roots" of public opinion research see Michael Margolis, "Public Opinion, Polling and Political Behavior" 66-67. On this problem in social thought

generally see James Carey's remarks in the forward to Hardt's Social Theories of the Press: "The history of the human sciences reveals significant problems that have been lost or defined away, concepts of power and scope that have been trivialized or thoughtlessly abandoned, methods and concerns that need to be rejuvenated and not merely picked over like the remains in a historical museum" (10).

9. See George Gallup and Saul Forbes, The Pulse of Democracy: The Public Opinion Poll and How it Works for a hymn on the pollster as lifeblood of a modern democracy. Gallup and Forbes argue that the ability to poll people on every public question "may help to bridge the gap between the people and those who are responsible for making decisions in their name" (14). What is interesting about this claim is that it is preceded by a discussion of the problem of public opinion which comes directly out of Lippmann, who is cited by the authors. It is clear that Gallup and Forbes see the technique of polling as a solution to the defects in public opinion sketched by Lippmann (10-15). For a contrasting view see Michael Wheeler, Lies, Damn Lies and Statistics, especially chap. 9.

10. As an example of the bias toward opinion rather than knowledge in the reporting of poll results consider a New York Times article of March 2, 1984 headlined "Many Who

See Failure in His Policies Don't Blame Their Affable President." The article reported on a New York Times/CBS News Poll which showed that Ronald Reagan's personal popularity remained high even though most people thought his policies--in Lebanon and on cutting the deficit--were failing. Here was an anomaly which might have been at least partly explained by what people knew of Reagan's actions. If most respondents did not understand the combination of factors creating a huge federal deficit, then it would make sense that they would not blame the President for his part in the budget crisis. And yet the Times was not interested in exploring this possibility. It provided no information about what people know, only about what they believe. So even where the poll results themselves call out for an investigation of public knowledge the Times contents itself with the measurement of opinion.

Conclusion

1. On accuracy, fairness and completeness as the dominant questions in studies of the press see, for example, the recent study Responsibility and Freedom in the Press, edited by Keith S. Collins, which concentrates almost exclusively on the above themes and assumes from the outset the existence and competence of a public (4). Nowhere present are the concerns of Lippmann and Dewey. The study was published in 1985.

2. On the lack of diversity in the way the press determines the news value of an events see Timothy Crouses's account of the 1972 Presidential campaign, The Boys on the Bus, especially the portrait of AP correspondent Walter Mears (20-23).

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